THE GRAND TOUR
A Key Phase in the History of Tourism

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ABSTRACT

Although the Grand Tour has been examined by various disciplines, it has rarely been examined from the perspective of tourism studies. This paper begins with a review of previous work and concepts about the tour and then outlines some of its principal features based on an analysis of the primary sources of information: the diaries, letters, and journals of the travelers. Four aspects of the Grand Tour are then examined: the tourists, spatial and temporal aspects of the tour, and the gradual development of a tourist industry. The degree of continuity and change in the character of the tour is assessed and major changes are attributed primarily to the changing social class of the tourists. The 1820s and 1830s are identified as an important transition period in the development of a more formalized tourist industry. **Keywords:** Grand Tour, tourism, history, Europe.

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RÉSUMÉ

Le grand tour: une phase clef dans l'histoire du tourisme. Quoique le grand tour a été examiné au sein de diverses disciplines, rarement a-t-il été considéré d'une perspective le traitant strictement d'étude de tourisme. Ici, on offre d'abord un aperçu des travaux antécédents, ainsi que des concepts qui en ressortent. Ensuite, on utilise de l'information trillée de sources premières, telles que lettres et journaux quotidiens de voyageurs, pour tracer les grandes lignes des caractéristiques de cette activité. On passe alors à un examen de l'expansion graduelle de l'industrie du tourisme, ainsi que des touristes eux-mêmes, tout en soulignant les aspects spatiaux et temporels du grand tour. On évalue le degré de continuité et de changement qui s'observe dans le caractère général du grand tour. Les changements majeurs observés sont attribués aux changements des classes sociales qui y participent comme touristes. Les décennies des années 1820 et 1830 forment une période importante dans l'évolution du grand tour en industrie touristique. **Mots clef:** grand tour, tourisme, histoire, Europe.

INTRODUCTION

The Grand Tour, that circuit of western Europe undertaken by a wealthy social elite for culture, education, and pleasure, is one of the more frequently cited phases in the history of tourism. A reference to the Grand Tour is often made in modern studies of tourism (Burkart and Medlik 1974; Pearce 1982; Robinson 1976; Turner and Ash 1975), where the conventional image of the tour as a journey undertaken in the eighteenth century by the young English aristocracy has endured with little modification.

The aim of this article is to provide an analysis of certain aspects of the Grand Tour based on the primary sources of the letters, journals, and diaries of the tourists. The Grand Tour is probably the first extensive tourist movement which provides an abundance of this type of research material which is capable of historical analysis (Towner 1984a). This article questions some assumptions made about the Grand Tour and highlights certain aspects which have not previously been made explicit.

PREVIOUS RESEARCH ON THE GRAND TOUR

Like all tourist movements, the Grand Tour was the product of a particular social and cultural environment. It has consequently attracted attention from many disciplines concerned with aspects of British history from the sixteenth to the nineteenth century and each, in turn, has provided its own perspective on the subject. The Grand Tour features in work on the development of the arts and intellectual life in Britain (Burdon 1960; Burke 1968; Einstein 1902; Ford 1974, 1981; Hale 1954; Houghton 1942; Lee 1910; Malins 1966; Manwaring 1925; Sutton 1982; von Klenze 1907). In these studies, an aristocratic image of the Grand Tour is conveyed as members of this social class were often important in this movement. Similarly, the history of education (Brauer 1959; Charlton 1965; Dent 1974, 1975; Parks 1951), social and economic histories (Mingay 1963, 1976; Pimlott 1947; Stone 1965; Thomson 1963) and general studies of the Grand Tour (Bates 1911; Hibbert 1969; Hutton 1937; Kirby 1952; Lambert 1935, 1950; Maxwell 1932; Mead 1914; Stoye 1952; Trease 1967) tend to focus on the landed classes in general. Works on the history of English literature, on the other hand, take a wider perspective on social status as many tour writers were drawn from the ranks of the middle classes (Batten 1978; Brand 1957; Fussell 1965; Honhart 1974; Morrill 1975; Rice 1968; Woodhouse 1976a, 1976b).

Most studies of the Grand Tour have been characterized by a descriptive rather than an analytical approach and the subject has seldom been examined from the distinct perspective of tourism studies. Stereotyped views have emerged from the various approaches with contradictions over some of the basic features of the tour. These include whether the Grand Tour followed prescribed routes (Batten 1978:375; Hutton 1937:1; Mead 1914:274) or followed no set pattern (Dent 1975:172; Hibbert 1969:25) and whether the tour was essentially leisurely (Lambert 1935:12) or whether the tourists traveled as fast as possible (Bates 1911:375). Studies in diplomatic history cast doubt on the role of the tour in training for a career in diplomacy and government (Horn 1961; Lachs 1965) whilst the extent to which a tour followed a spell at Oxford or Cambridge University; a feature claimed by some writers (Klima 1975:1; Lawson and Silver 1973:217–218; Mingay 1963:137–138), is uncertain when the evidence indicates a fall in attendance at the universities during the eighteenth century when the numbers of tourists increased (Kearney 1970:157; Stone 1975:6).

Opinions on the origins of the Grand Tour vary from the break with the church of Rome in 1534, which changed spiritual pilgrims into secular tourists, to the mid-seventeenth century (Howard 1914) or early eighteenth century (Ford 1981). The decline of the tour has been attributed to the French Revolutionary wars of the late eighteenth century (Hutton 1937:1), the coming of the railways in the 1840s (Lambert 1935:12), or to the increase in middle class travelers and changing cultural attitudes (Brand 1957). Even the social class of the tourists is open to confusion, with the usual landed class image varying with the type of source material used and the disciplinary perspective taken. Some writers detect middle class tourists as early as 1660 (Hutton 1937:53) while others wait until the later eighteenth century for this development (Mead 1914:121; Mingay 1963:138). Finally, although there is general agreement that a tour of the continent lasted about 3 years (Burke 1968:23; Mead 1914:3; Mingay 1963:138), there is little consideration of whether this changed through the centuries.

These apparent contradictions in the conventional view of the Grand Tour have recently led to certain doubts being expressed about some of the basic assumptions underlying the nature of the tour. Dent (1975:3) questions whether the age of the tourists, their itinerary and length of travel abroad is really known. Woodhouse (1976a) feels that the idea of the Grand Tourist as a foppish aristocrat wasting his time abroad is much exaggerated and based on biased source material. Contemporary portrayals of the foolish tourist were perhaps a warning against social excesses rather than a reflection of the true picture (e.g., Pope 1742; Smollett 1751; Sterne 1765).

DEFINITION AND PRINCIPAL CHARACTERISTICS

The conflicting views over what comprised the Grand Tour stem, in part, from the varying conceptions of the tour by different disciplines. If the Grand Tour is seen as a distinctly aristocratic institution, then the age of the tourist, his motives for travel, the length of the tour, its spatial pattern, as well as the period when the tour declined, will vary considerably from a view of the tour as a circuit of western Europe which could be undertaken by anyone. In other words, should the Grand Tour be defined by the social class of the tourist or where the tourist went? This article adopts the latter view. If the Grand Tour is seen as primarily aristocratic, then wherever the aristocracy went would constitute the Grand Tour and areas such as Portugal, Greece, and the Near East would have to be

included. This is a legitimate view, but it does have certain drawbacks. Other social classes would be excluded from analysis and the evolution of a distinct travel circuit in western Europe; the ancestor of the "continental holiday in its various modern forms" (Pimlott 1947:65), would be blurred. This article focuses on this circuit to show how the class of tourist changed, the extent to which spatial and temporal patterns remained or were altered, and the degree to which a tourist industry evolved to meet the demands of the tourists.

The Oxford English Dictionary defines the Grand Tour as:

> A tour of the principal cities and places of interest in Europe, formerly supposed to be an essential part of the education of young men of good birth or fortune.

Because of the constraints of social class and motive that this definition implies, an alternative definition is suggested:

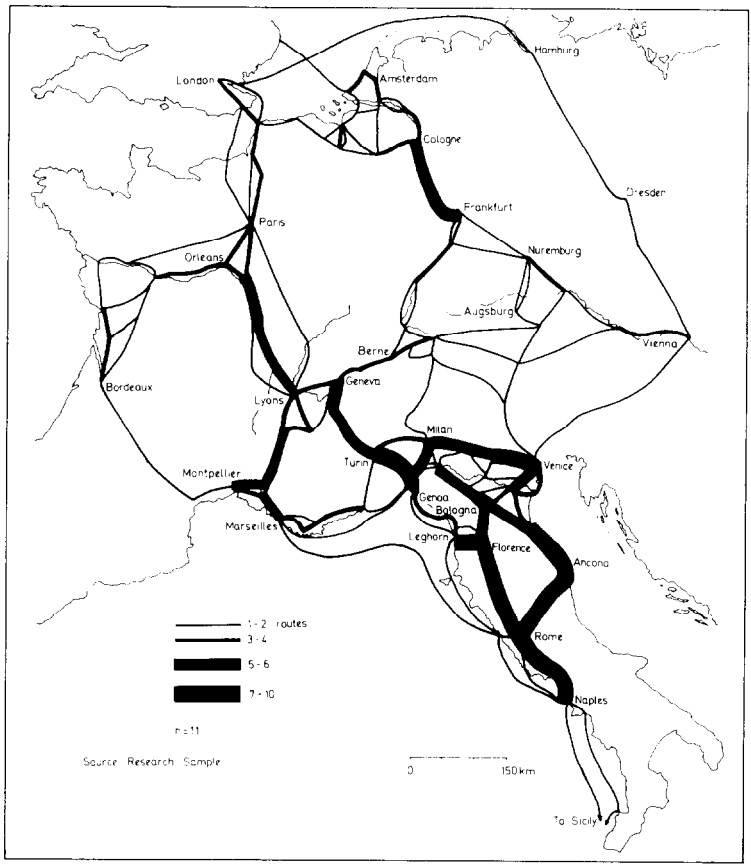
> A tour of certain cities and places in western Europe undertaken primarily, but not exclusively, for education and pleasure.

Thus the Grand Tour is envisaged as a particular tourist circuit of Europe which was not exclusive to one social class. This circuit centred principally on France, Italy, Germany, Switzerland, and the Low Countries. The tour was undertaken principally, but not exclusively by the British (Friedländer 1876; Krasnobaev 1980; Schudt 1959) until the nineteenth century when Americans performed a similar circuit of Europe (Baker 1964; Dulles 1964; Strout 1963). Although the social class of the tourist on the tour changed over time, the distinct tour itinerary remained broadly the same: a visit to Paris and the court at Versailles, then to the classical antiquities of the lower Rhone valley followed by a tour of the cities of northern Italy, including Turin, Milan, and Venice. Florence, Rome, and Naples formed the climax to the tour and the return to Britain was generally made through Germany, down the Rhine, and across the Low Countries (see Figures 1 and 2).

AN ANALYSIS OF FOUR ASPECTS OF THE GRAND TOUR

An analytical approach to the Grand Tour is possible because of the wealth of primary research material. These are principally the diaries, journals, and letters written by the tourists during their journeys around Europe. Contemporary guidebooks and maps pro-

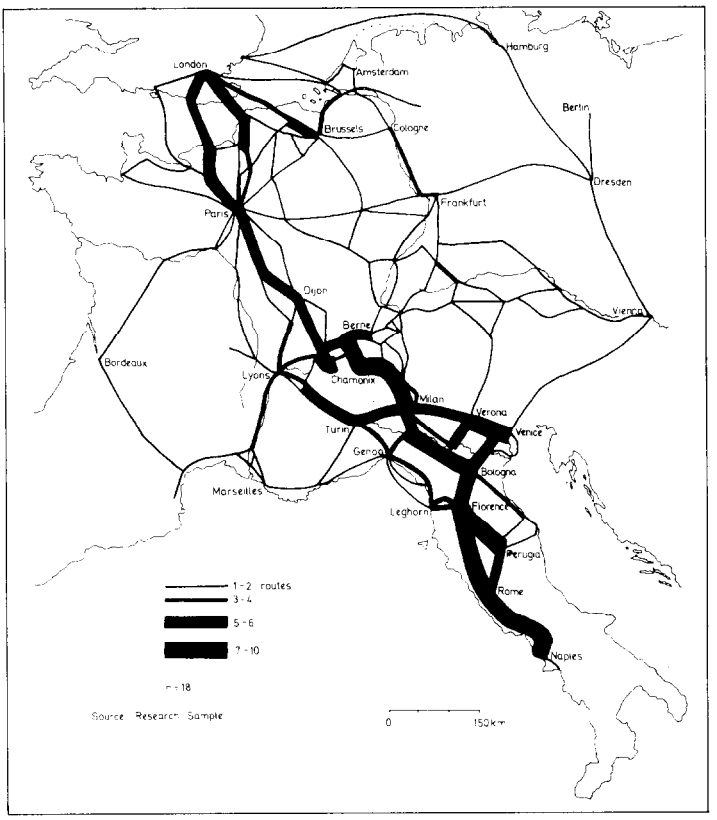
Figure 1
The Grand Tour 1661–1700



vide further information. What appears to be lacking, however, is information from the provider side of the tourist system in the host countries, and research in this field is little developed. There is, therefore, an inherent imbalance in the overall picture presented.

Tourist records, in unpublished and published form, enable the itinerary, length of stay in centers, total length of the tour, method of transport, and accommodation used, as well as impressions of the areas visited, to be assessed. These sources have limitations which include: (a) a bias towards literary evidence which over-emphasizes the importance of the older and more serious traveler; (b) the material tends to reflect the well-preserved records of the landed classes and literary figures; and (c) the problems of rewriting

Figure 2
The Grand Tour 1814–1820



and editing of both manuscript and published accounts, the omission of important personal events, plagarism, fictitious tours, changes in literary styles, and literary conventions (Towner 1984a).

The present research (Towner 1984b) was based on the analysis of a sample of 108 separate tours selected from a total of 925 published tours compiled between 1547 and 1840 (derived from Brand 1956; Cox 1935–1949; Martin 1854: Matthews 1950; NCBEL 1974–; Pine-Coffin 1974). Seventy-seven tours were in published form and 31 were manuscripts published at a later date. These tours often involved group travel and the total number of tourists sampled was 222. Therefore, tourists who left no personal written record were included and so the bias to literary travelers was counter-balanced to some extent. Biographical information was

traced for 180 of the sample (Burke 1836, 1868; Burke v.d.; Cockayne 1900; DNB; Foster 1891; Gibbs 1910–1959; Venn and Venn 1922). The tour analysis was grouped into 14 time divisions between 1547 and 1840, each division varying in length and number of tours but attempting to reflect important historical events and the general increase in the number of published tours over time. The selection of tours was not entirely random but this type of data does not lend itself to statistical precision. The tours in each time division were plotted on itinerary maps, two of which are reproduced here (Figures 1 and 2).

The Tourists

The Potential Tourist Group. It is difficult to assess the possible numbers of tourists who may have been involved in the Grand Tour. Passports were not compulsory and comprehensive cross-channel statistics did not commence until the mid-nineteenth century (Pimlott 1947:189). Contemporary estimates are thus highly subjective. The following is a summary of some of the numbers referred to:

1763–1765	Horace Walpole estimated 20,000 Englishmen a year were abroad (Pimlott 1947:68).
1785	Edward Gibbon was told that 40,000 Englishmen, including their servants, were on the continent (Pimlott 1947:68).
1802	An estimate of 15–16,000 abroad by Lady Jermingham (Pimlott 1947:186).
1823	Daniel Wilson estimated 10–15,000 Englishmen abroad (Wilson 1825 (1):213).
1830s	An estimated 50,000 English were abroad (Pimlott 1947:189).

Only the last figure is based on any reliable statistical material but the figures give an impression of perhaps 15–20,000 tourists per annum abroad in the eighteenth century. Out of a population of around 6.5 million, this suggests 0.2–0.3% of the population were on foreign tours compared to about 10% by the 1960s (Burkart and Medlik 1974:313).

Another approach is to use contemporary population surveys which provide information on population structure, numbers, and income. Two of these were Gregory King's estimate for 1688, based on tax returns, and Patrick Colquhoun's survey of 1803, based on the first population census of 1801 (Table 1). They have been much

Table 1

Potential Grand Tourist Groups 1688–1803

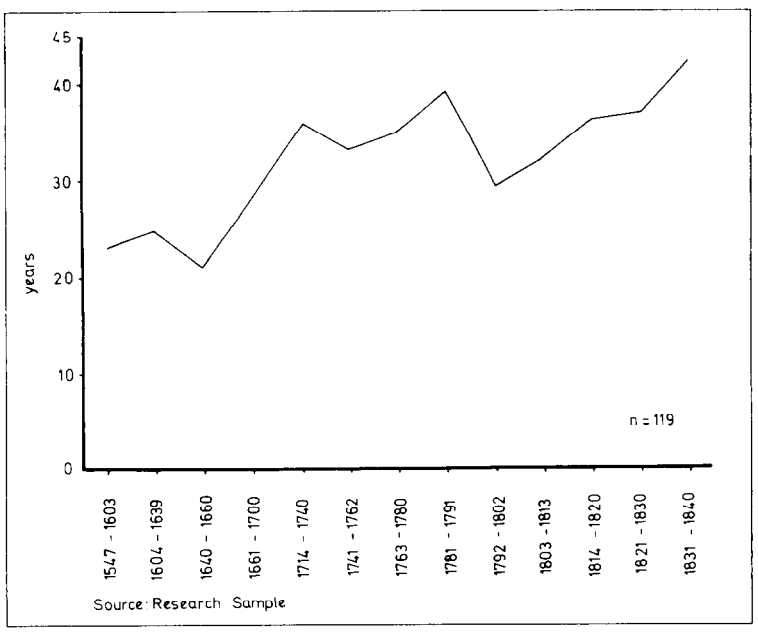
	Social Status	No. of Persons (total members of families)	Av Annual Income per Family (£)	Total Pop.
1688 (Gregory King)				
Landed Classes (2.3% of population 14.1% of national income)	Peers	6,400	2,800	c.5.5m.
	Bishops	520	1,300	
	Baronets	12,800	880	
	Knights	7,800	650	
	Esquires	3,000	450	
	Gentlemen	96,000	280	
		126,520		
Professional Middle Classes (6.7% of population 17.4% of national income)	Clergy	12,000	60	
	Clergy	40,000	45	
	Lawyers	70,000	140	
	Sciences/ Liberal Arts	80,000	60	
	Persons in Offices	40,000	240	
	Persons in Offices	30,000	120	
	Naval Officers	16,000	80	
	Military Officers	16,000	60	
	Sea Merchants	16,000	400	
	Land Merchants	48,000	200	
		368,000		
1803 (Patrick Colquhoun)				
Landed Classes (2.6% of population 15.1% of national income)	Peers	7,175	8,000	c.9.3m.
	Bishops	390	4,000	
	Baronets	8,100	3,000	
	Knights	3,500	1,500	
	Esquires	60,000	1,500	
	Gentlemen	160,000	700	
		239,165		
Professional Middle Classes (4.4% of population 13.1% of national income)	Upper Clergy	6,000	500	
	Lower Clergy	50,000	120	
	Lawyers	55,000	350	
	Sciences/ Liberal Arts	81,500	260	
	Upper Civil Offices	14,000	800	
	Lower Civil Offices	52,500	200	
	Naval Officers	15,000	149	
	Military Officers	25,000	139	
	Upper Merchants	20,000	2,600	
	Lower Merchants	91,000	800	
		410,000		

Source: George 1931 pp. 218–219.

employed by social and economic historians, providing "historical enlightenment without quantitative accuracy" (Mathias 1957–1958:32). From these figures the two social groups from whom potential tourists might be drawn can be isolated. These comprise the landed classes of peers and gentry, who had time and money for touring derived from the rents from the land they owned, and the professional middle classes, who, if they sometimes lacked the time to tour extensively, often had sufficient money. (The landed classes and middle classes formed some 80–90% of the sample of tourists selected for research.) Table 1 shows the growth in the two groups from 1688 to 1803; the landed classes increased from 126,000 (2.3% of the population) to 239,000 (2.6% of the population) and the middle classes from 368,000 (6.7%) to 410,000 (4.4%). The two groups combined accounted for about 7–9% of the total population. Since many middle class families lacked the time to travel extensively, perhaps a figure of 3–4% of the total population represented the nucleus from which Grand Tourists might have been drawn.

High incomes were concentrated in the hands of a few (the landed classes never formed more than 2–3% of the population but pos-

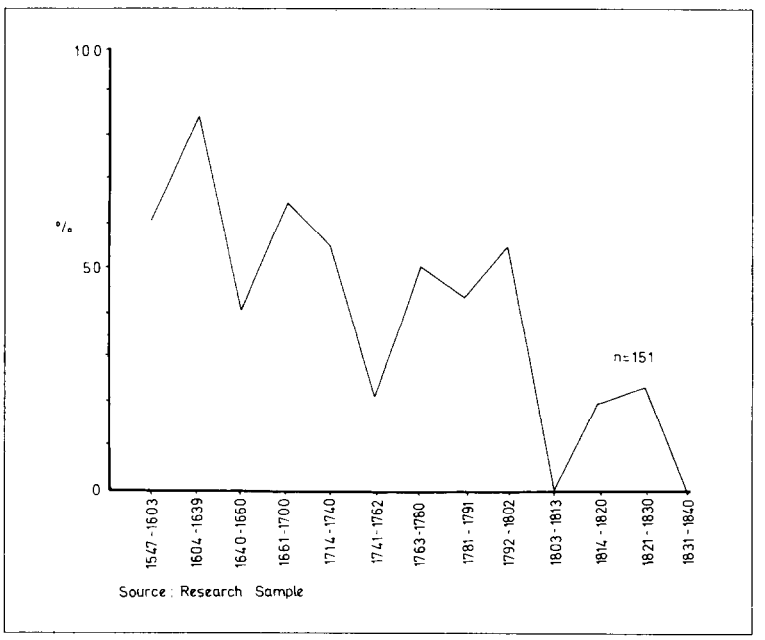
Figure 3
Average Age of Grand Tour Sample
1547–1840



sessed 14–15% of the national income). These incomes grew between 1688 and 1803, tripling for the aristocracy, doubling for the gentry and increasing six-fold for merchants and bankers. These figures have to be set against estimates for the cost of a Grand Tour, which suggest a minimum of about £100 per annum throughout most of the tour period (Dallington 1605; Mingay 1963:141; Monthly Review 1766:31). Work on family histories (Larminie 1980; Thomson 1937) provides a figure of about 8% of a landed income set aside for education, though whether this can be related to Grand Tour expenditure is highly speculative. Detailed research on Grand Tour family records, which combine both income and expenditure, may clarify this aspect.

Social Status and Related Factors. Figures 3, 4, and Table 2 show the changes in average age, social status, occupation, and university education of the tourist sample. (Categories for social status and occupation could vary, e.g., an aristocrat might be classified as a student, or a professional classified as a writer, while they were touring.)

Figure 4
Percentage of Grand Tour Sample Who Attended University 1547–1840



Tables 2A & 2B

Social Status and Occupation of Grand Tour
Sample 1547–1840: Social Status (A)

Percentage of:	Aristocracy	Gentry	Clergy	Professional	Forces	Trade	Other	n =
1547–1603	—	80	—	—	—	—	20	(5)
1604–1639	14	43	—	14	—	29	—	(7)
1640–1660	—	80	—	20	—	—	—	(5)
1661–1700	20	25	5	35	5	10	—	(20)
1714–1740	35	15	15	30	—	5	—	(20)
1741–1762	30	10	20	20	10	—	10	(10)
1763–1780	22	28	11	28	11	—	—	(18)
1781–1791	11	11	11	44	—	23	—	(9)
1792–1802	11	11	11	67	—	—	—	(9)
1803–1813	—	—	—	100	—	—	—	(2)
1814–1820	8	8	16	44	16	—	8	(25)
1821–1830	15	8	8	69	—	—	—	(13)
1831–1840	—	—	13	62	—	25	—	(8)
								(151)

Social Status and Occupation of Grand Tour Sample 1547–1840: Occupation (B)

Percentage of:	Aristocracy	Gentry	Clergy	Student/ Pupil	Tutor	Professional	Writer	Forces	Trade	Other	n =
1547–1603	—	20	—	60	—	—	—	—	—	20	(5)
1604–1639	—	—	—	43	14	—	—	—	14	29	(7)
1640–1660	—	60	—	20	20	—	—	—	—	—	(5)
1661–1700	5	15	5	25	20	25	—	—	—	5	(20)
1714–1740	15	5	—	40	35	—	—	—	—	5	(20)
1741–1762	10	10	10	20	30	—	—	10	—	10	(10)
1763–1780	11	6	5	28	17	11	11	11	—	—	(18)
1781–1791	11	11	11	—	—	23	44	—	—	—	(9)
1792–1802	11	11	—	—	11	11	45	—	—	11	(9)
1803–1813	—	—	—	—	—	—	100	—	—	—	(2)
1814–1820	8	4	12	—	—	28	20	12	—	16	(25)
1821–1830	8	8	8	—	—	15	61	—	—	—	(13)
1831–1840	—	—	13	—	—	—	62	—	25	—	(8)
											(151)

Source: Research Sample.

Social Status: The most important change in the characteristic of the sample was in social status, where there was a transition in about the 1780s from a predominance of the landed classes over to that of the professional middle classes (Tables 2a & b). The landed classes provided some 40–80% of the tourist sample until the later eighteenth century, but from the 1781–1791 period the middle classes came to dominate the sample, averaging over 60% for subsequent periods. Even with the problem of bias towards professional writers, the overall trend is clear. It seems probable that the landed classes were forsaking the traditional circuit of western Europe in a search for greater social exclusivity either by searching for more marginal areas such as Greece, the Near East, and Portugal, or by creating socially exclusive resorts within Europe. In both cases, the attractiveness of a region was in inverse proportion to the number of tourists.

Other social groups fluctuated in importance. The clergy constituted up to 20% of the sample, often acting as tutors and authors of Grand Tour accounts. Ex-members of the armed forces and those in trade also made a tour of Europe.

Occupation: The pronounced shift in the social status of the tourist sample can be traced in the occupation of the travelers at the time of their Grand Tours. The educational element of the tour (identified by the student/pupil and tutor groupings) was mainly associated with the landed classes. In the 1714–1740 period, as many as 40% of the sample were on their Grand Tour as students or pupils and a further 35% were traveling as tutors. By 1781–1791 this figure had declined sharply and this can be associated with the decline of the landed classes on the Grand Tour. The middle class expansion in the sample was principally related to the rise of professional writers, those whose income was derived mainly from publishing their works (Fulton 1972). Examples in the sample included Tobias Smollett, Dr. John Moore, Mrs. Radcliffe, famous for her "Gothic" novels, and William Hazlitt, whose account of his journey was serialized in the *Morning Chronicle* while he was touring. Despite the literary bias in the sample, these examples do illustrate the increased ability of the middle classes to travel abroad and how the position of an unearned landed income was declining in importance as a basic enabling factor for many tourists.

Education: The increase in middle class travelers was also responsible for the decline in the percentage of the sample who were university (mainly Oxford and Cambridge) educated (Figure 4). While 85% of the sample had been to university in the 1604–1639 period, this had fallen to 20% in 1814–1820 and none by 1831–

1840. This trend mirrors the decline in student numbers at Oxford and Cambridge during the eighteenth century (Kearney 1970; Stone 1975). The sample showed little indication of the landed classes substituting a Grand Tour for a university education and, in fact, many of them continued to attend Oxford or Cambridge. The decline in university education recorded in the sample was due more to the overall change in the social status of the tourists.

Age: The increased numbers of middle class tourists were the main factor behind the rise in the average age of the sample (Figure 3), which gradually rose from 23 years to 42 years between 1547–1603 and 1831–1840. These figures seem higher than might be expected, but when they are broken down by social status the position becomes clearer. Aristocratic students, traveling with a tutor, had ages ranging from 14 to 23 years (hence the conventional image of the precocious Grand Tourist), while the average age of the gentry was 29 and the professional classes 39. Tutors were often in their 30s and 40s, as were writers. This wider perspective on age and social class, rather than a narrower focus on the aristocracy shows how the picture of the Grand Tourist can be distorted by a preoccupation with the titled and famous. As the percentage of the professional classes increased on the tour, so the average age rose.

Reasons for Travel: The underlying psychological reasons for undertaking a Grand Tour are impossible to diagnose. Rather, the observable reasons for travel are categorized under the headings of career, education, culture, literary, health, scientific, business, economy, and others. The reasons for travel underwent broad changes which can be linked to the general cultural environment in Britain and the changing social composition of the tourist body.

Practical training for a career, acquired through travel, was only found to be important in the earliest periods of the Grand Tour, when members of the gentry like Sir Thomas Hoby and Sir Henry Wotton could enter government service and rise to the ranks of ambassador, applying the skills they learned on their travels. In general, however, the landed classes in the sample progressed to posts such as Members of Parliament and County Sheriffs for the gentry, or Lord Lieutenants and court sinecures for the aristocracy and these were posts reserved for their social class whether they traveled or not. This reinforces the idea that a diplomatic career was not a significant motive for many Grand Tourists. Educational motives were found mainly in the periods between 1661 and 1763, with the landed classes and their tutors, but this declined as the proportion of middle class travel increased.

Travel for health was always a small but significant factor for

some tourists throughout most of the periods, with Montpellier forming the main destination center from the late seventeenth century when this resort was increasingly drawing English visitors (Bromley 1692; Fall 1931; Nugent 1749). Few lengthy stays were made at spa centers such as Spa or Baden, but whether this was simply sample bias is unclear. Some travelers included centers like Nice in their tours, indicating the rise of that area as a health and leisure zone from the later eighteenth century (Nash 1979).

The influence of the general cultural environment on travel motives can be seen with the increasing interest in the fine arts in Europe during the seventeenth century and which can be linked to the rise of the amateur virtuoso in England (Houghton 1942) which strengthened the taste for classical antiquities and the Renaissance. A similar process accounts for the rise of the scientific traveler from the seventeenth century, especially after 1660. A general interest in empirical fact-gathering helped to fill many travel journals and was stimulated by the creation of the Royal Society in 1662 (Frantz 1934). This aspect of the tour declined after the 1780s as the professional scientist began to replace the amateur. Literary motives for travel were associated with the rise of the professional writer and, by the 1820s and 1830s, many tour accounts were written by authors searching for material which they could turn into the fashionably romantic sketches of foreign life and scenery (e.g., Bray 1841; Graham 1820; Latrobe 1832). Among the other reasons for travel abroad, the sample revealed a few concerned with business, political or religious reasons and some purely personal motives.

These broad trends influenced the composition of the traveling groups. While tutor and pupil groups were important from about 1660 to the 1740s, they were gradually replaced by an increase in family group travel in the sample, especially from the 1760s. This family aspect to travel resulted in an important increase in the number of women who made the Grand Tour and was a particularly middle class phenomenon with middle aged men and their wives and children making a circuit of Europe (Mains 1966).

The sample of tourists discussed here shows a more complex picture than the stereotype of the young aristocrat traveling with his tutor. They did form an important element but clearly there were other groups traveling around Europe for varying reasons. The sample lacks complete objectivity and the tourists who left no journal are difficult to trace. Thus, only tentative conclusions can be drawn, but the broad trends are probably correct. There was a change from a mainly landed class educational/cultural tourist

grouping to a middle class tour of professional people often traveling with their families which grew in the later eighteenth century.

Spatial Aspects of the Grand Tour

The itinerary maps for the periods 1661–1700 and 1814–1820 (Figures 1 and 2) indicate the degree of stability and change in the spatial pattern of the Grand Tour over time. The earlier map represents what may be termed the "Classical Grand Tour," when an interest in the ancient classical world and its rediscovery in the forms of the Renaissance, was reaching its zenith. The later map can be regarded as the "Romantic Grand Tour" when romantic and picturesque sensibilities dominated the taste of many tourists and the Grand Tour was enjoying its Indian summer.

The Classical Grand Tour

The dominance of classical and Renaissance tastes on the pattern of the late seventeenth century tour is clear. Italy was the principal country for these resources and it was there that the most clearly defined route patterns were found, reflecting the distinct tourist goals that Italy possessed. The north Italian centers of Turin, Milan, Verona, Vicenza, and Venice defined one route system; Piacenza, Parma, Reggio, Modena, and Bologna another. Bologna was an important crossroads for routes to Florence and Rome and Venice and Milan. The circuit Bologna-Florence-Rome-Naples-Rome-Ancona-Bologna was a pattern which lasted from the mid-seventeenth to the late eighteenth century.

A clear focus of routes was also found in France. The classical antiquities of the lower Rhone valley—Vienne, Orange, Arles, Nimes, and the Pont du Gard—formed one nucleus in this period, while the cultural and political importance of Paris can be clearly seen. It was during the second half of the seventeenth century that Versailles, the symbol of French dominance, was created. Most routes from Paris flowed to Lyons, then to Italy or the Rhone valley and the health resort of Montpellier.

Certain transport systems influenced the pattern, especially those based on water. The Rhine was a major routeway that avoided the poor German roads, while in the Low Countries the trekvaart system of canals (De Vries 1978) provided unrivalled transport to the Dutch towns and cities which were then at their economic and cultural height. Elsewhere, major rivers such as the Po, Rhone, Loire, and Danube influenced the choice of routes.

An interest in natural scenery was of little consequence for the spatial pattern of the Grand Tour in the seventeenth century. While some interest was shown in rural scenery (particularly fertile, humanized landscapes), these sentiments were mainly confined to incidental observations while traveling to the major cultural centers. Some of the main destination centers possessed a range of attractions by the late seventeenth century. Paris and Rome were important for a general gentlemanly education in the arts and they were also acquiring a reputation for "polite" society where the latest manners and fashions could be studied.

The Romantic Grand Tour

The map for 1814–1820 shows that the overall spatial pattern of the tour remained much the same as for the seventeenth century and was resumed after the Napoleonic wars with only certain modifications. But, although the pattern remained generally the same, the tourists' responses to what they saw were dominated by romantic views of both urban and rural landscapes. These embraced a passion for the medieval and a love of wild nature with its sublime and picturesque scenery. In fact, much of the tour pattern can now be viewed in terms of "scenic tourism."

Paris remained a focus of routes north of the Alps but Italy was reached via Dijon, the Jura mountains, Geneva, and the Simplon pass. Wild scenery could be appreciated in the Jura and Italy and its northern lakes reached via a route made fit for carriages by Napoleon in the early 1800s.

In Italy, the pattern remained much as before, except that the circuit to Rome was generally via the picturesque medieval towns of central Italy, including Arezzo and Perugia, rather than traveling along the Adriatic coast through Ancona and Loreto. The sites of classical antiquities and Renaissance treasures still dominated the pattern, but the tourists were more concerned with the picturesque aspects of ruins and the emotional effect of scenes on their own feelings.

The search for scenic sites also explains the focus of routes on the Rhine valley, especially between Mainz and Cologne, where the valley had evolved from simply being a convenient routeway to a tourist attraction in its own right. The desire to reach the Rhine quickly can be seen in the development of routes from Ostend to Brussels and Cologne. Brussels was also a center from which the battlefield of Waterloo could be visited. In Switzerland, Lake Geneva was a focal point for tours to Chamonix and Lauterbrunnen,

Grindelwald, Lake Lucerne, and an ascent of the Rigi, all part of the Grand Tour itinerary.

The spatial pattern of the Grand Tour, therefore, was fixed by certain major nuclei which included Paris, the Rhine valley, Rome, Florence, Naples, Venice, Turin, Milan, and Bologna and lesser centers like Vienna, Prague, and Dresden. As cultural tastes changed, small but significant shifts occurred in this pattern. Some areas were notable for their long-term stability, such as those in Italy and routes to Paris and the Rhine. In other areas, like Germany, the patterns were always more diffuse, reflecting a lack of clearly defined tourist goals. Some areas declined with changing tastes, such as the Loire valley in the seventeenth century and the Low Countries in the later eighteenth century. Other areas rose in popularity, for instance, a circuit of the German courts between the mid-eighteenth century and the early nineteenth century, the Ostend-Cologne route which developed from the late eighteenth century, the Swiss lakes and Chamonix which became part of the tour from the 1760s, and central Italy which was visited from the 1790s.

The reasons for the stability and change of these patterns are complex but an analogy with ecology indicates some of the main features. The stability of an ecosystem is a function of its species diversity; the greater the diversity, the more stable the system. Some centers on the Grand Tour had long-term stability because they possessed several facets and were thus able to cater to the changing tastes and fashions of the tourists. Rome possessed classical antiquities, Renaissance architecture and fashionable society, Florence possessed medieval and Renaissance buildings and fashionable society, and the Rhine valley was both a routeway and a region of romantic scenery. Conversely, the Low Countries were seen to possess only prosperous towns and fruitful countryside, which went out of fashion in the late eighteenth century, and the Loire was preeminently an educational center and so declined when this aspect of the tour became less important. Some tastes have remained more constant. As heirs of the Romantics, many modern tourists continue to search for natural scenery, and centers like Switzerland have maintained their popularity.

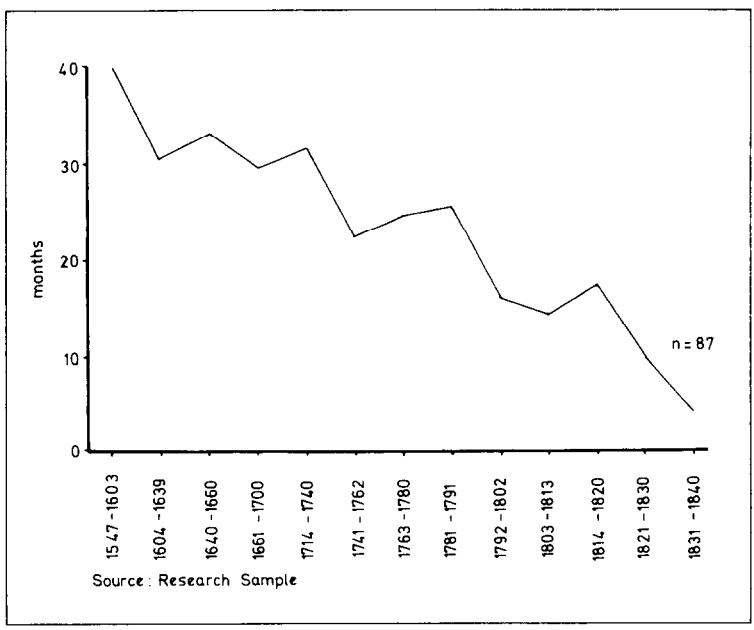
Temporal Aspects of the Grand Tour

Part of the content analysis of the primary sources was directed towards discovering whether the Grand Tours showed distinct patterns and trends in their temporal aspects. Four examples are examined here: the decline in the overall length of the tour, the sea-

sons for starting and finishing a tour, the seasons for visiting various centers abroad and the decline in the length of time spent at those centers.

The length of the tour: Figure 5 shows the change in the average length of the tour as recorded by the sample. It indicates a marked decline from an average of 40 months in the mid-sixteenth century to an average of only 4 months by the 1830s. This seems to have been due to several factors. The nature of the tour changed, from the practical, studious tours of the earlier periods, which demanded lengthy study periods at centers abroad, to the more general cultural tour of the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries with a variety of sites to be visited. Further changes came with the influx of the middle classes who, with limited time and money, spent shorter periods abroad. By the 1830s, the middle class tourists in the sample were making a summer tour of Europe of only a few months. A further decisive factor appears to have been the unsettled conditions created by the French Revolutionary and Napoleonic wars, from the 1790s to 1814, which imposed restrictions on time and movement. After these wars the Grand Tour never regained its old pattern of several years abroad.

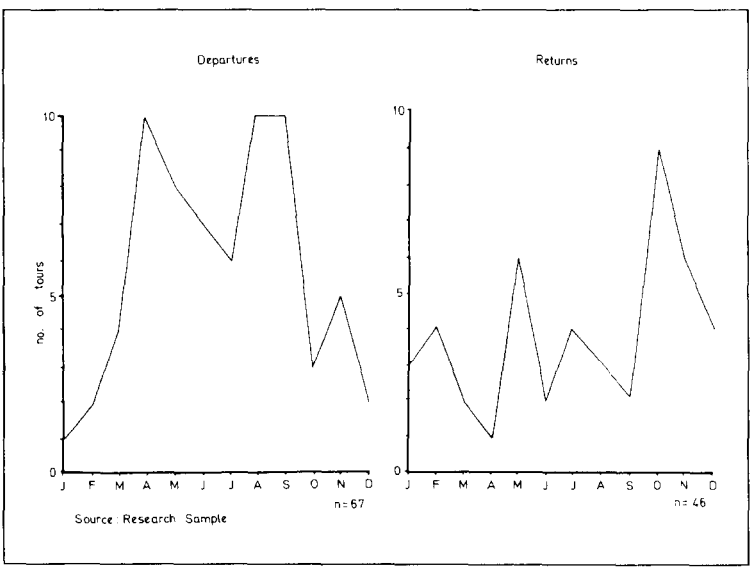
Figure 5
Average Length of the Grand Tour 1547–1840



The itinerary map for 1814–1820 shows that the shorter time abroad was not due to a more limited route pattern; the same overall circuit was still being followed as for 1661–1700, and an analysis of journey times showed that the tourists were not traveling any faster on a daily basis. The time saved was at the expense of lengths of stay in particular centers, especially transit ones, and in fewer long-stay destination centers. It is significant that the shorter Grand Tour had developed long before the railways could have made a noticeable impact on journey times in Europe and their role must be seen as partly symbolic and as accelerating a process which had been developing for some time (Clough 1964, 1968; Henderson 1967; Pounds 1979).

The season for starting and finishing a tour: Figure 6 shows the monthly departures and returns for the Grand Tour sample. The departure figures show a distinct two-season period: April–May and August–September. This pattern remained throughout the whole tour period until the 1820s and 1830s when the sample showed a change towards a mid-summer departure of May–June–July. This was perhaps the precursor of the modern British pattern of summer holidays abroad (BHTS 1980:7). The pattern for returning journeys is less clear although May and October were the main

Figure 6
Total Monthly Departures and Returns of Grand Tour Sample



periods. Again, a change could be detected in the 1820s and 1830s when there was a September–October peak, emphasizing that by then the tour was essentially a short summer excursion abroad.

The reasons for the pronounced peaks in tourist departure are not entirely clear. Climate, the attraction of festivals in certain destination centers and the dates of the fashionable season at home are possible factors. Certainly, seasonal departures had a long history; medieval pilgrims left England in October to reach Rome for Lent (Parks 1954:353) and Chaucer's pilgrims set out in April when the first signs of spring could be seen. The London fashionable season, which developed from the early seventeenth century (Cannadine 1978; Fisher 1948) and stretched from autumn to July, with a peak at Christmas, was a possible additional influence, with tourists going abroad as the season waned.

The need to cross the Alps before snow (from mid-October to June) made travel difficult (Murray 1838:xlv), was an important influence on the timing of a tour departure. Many Alpine crossings in the sample took place in October and this would follow an autumn departure from England. Leaving in April would result in a more leisurely journey across France to Lyons where the tourists gathered before crossing the Mt. Cenis pass to Italy. The attraction of religious festivals was an additional factor. Rome was visited at Christmas and during the Easter celebrations and the Carnival (ranging from March to April) and Venice was visited for the Ascensiontide ceremony (ranging from April to June). Leaving England in the autumn, crossing the Alps in early October, spending Christmas and Easter in Rome and Ascensiontide in Venice, was a pattern followed by many tourists until the nineteenth century.

The seasons for visiting various centers: Marked seasonal patterns for visiting various centers abroad are revealed in Figure 7. Two types of centers can be distinguished: transit centers visited en route, and destination centers which were the principal goals of the tour and whose seasonal stays helped to govern the overall tempo of the tour. As with departure dates, the attraction of festivals and the influence of climate were dominant factors and their impact can be considered at three scales: the overall European scale, the regional scale, and the local scale.

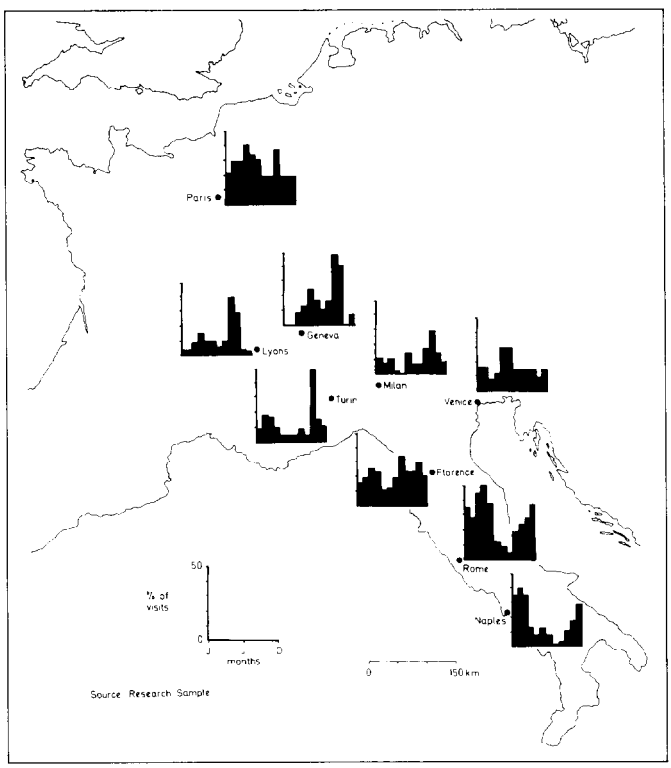
At the European scale, distinct seasonal travel was not very apparent, except when related to departure times from England. It might be expected that winter travel would be avoided, particularly north of the Alps, but the tourist sample did not clearly follow this pattern, and the idea of summer travel north of the Alps and winter travel south of the Alps was not confirmed. With tours extending

over several seasons, the picture was far more complex. Only in the nineteenth century did a clear summer tour take place.

At a regional scale, a clearer pattern can be discerned. Two predominantly transit centers, Lyons and Turin, indicate one aspect of this. Lyons was the principal gathering center for tourists in France, prior to crossing the Alps in October (Gailhard 1678:140) and Turin was the first major center in Italy that they reached. Both cities showed a marked seasonal pattern in stay: September and October in Lyons and October in Turin. Similar peaks in visitor stays occurred in Geneva and Milan which were also transit centers geared to the crossing of the Alps in Autumn.

Destination centers also had distinct seasons for visitors. Rome had two peaks, the more important over Easter, when 50% of the visits in the sample took place, and the other from December to

Figure 7
Seasonal Variations in Grand Tour Visits to Selected Centers 1547–1840



January for the Christmas celebrations. Climate was also influential, with summer heat and the fear of disease keeping tourists away from southern regions especially in June, July, and August. In Naples, climatic factors seem to have been most important, with the peak of visitors between December and March, and the summer heat, between May and September, avoided. In these southern regions there seems to have been a clear winter tourist season which lasted, for the Grand Tourists, until the 1830s. After then, summer visits became increasingly common.

Venice had a peak of visitors over Ascensiontide with 30% of sampled visitors staying during the celebrations. Otherwise, the city's Grand Tour season was fairly evenly spread, possibly reflecting its more northerly position where summer heat was less of a deterrent. The overall impression gained is of Grand Tourists moving to northern Italy in the summer months and visiting southern Italy during the winter.

North of the Alps, seasonal patterns were less clear although tours of Switzerland took place in the summer, generally between July and September (Ebel 1820:39). The two peaks that were recorded for Paris, in April, and September, can be related to the departure months for the Grand Tour, and emphasize the city's role as the first major destination center to be visited on the continent. Seasonal movements also occurred on a local scale. Some visitors to Rome would retreat to the nearby Alban hills rather than travel north in the summer, while near Naples, Sorrento developed into a summer retreat away from the city.

The length of time spent in centers: Changes also came in the length of stay in centers and regions during the period of the Grand Tour. As the total length of time spent on the tour declined, so did the average length of time spent in individual centers. This decline, however, was not uniformly spread over the whole tour itinerary. Major destination centers like Rome, Florence, Naples, and Paris suffered declines in lengths of stay but it was in the transit centers that the real savings were made. The sample of tours showed that, in the early tours, lengthy stays were made in many centers but that later tourists made only a few long stays and would spend only one or two nights in the various transit centers.

During the sixteenth and early seventeenth centuries, centers of learning, like Padua and Siena, recorded the longest periods of stay for visitors, reflecting the serious nature of the tour. Venice was also important in this respect; it was a politically safe haven for Protestant travelers when Rome was only visited for comparatively short periods. During the seventeenth century, educational centers

in the Loire valley such as Saumur, Tours, and Blois were visited for long periods and their academies gave instruction in languages and social skills such as riding and fencing. From the 1660s, Paris and Rome came to dominate the Grand Tour in terms of length of stay; Paris as the political and artistic center of the most influential country in Europe, and Rome as the cultural and artistic center of western civilization where Protestant visitors were now safe. Florence became increasingly important from the early eighteenth century, while from the 1760s the German courts like Vienna, Dresden, Prague, and Berlin began to record lengthy periods of stay, emphasizing their rise as social and cultural centers north of the Alps. During the later eighteenth century, centers such as Geneva and Lausanne began to act as bases for a Swiss tour.

Some centers suffered a decline in lengths of stay. The Loire centers declined from the late seventeenth century, Turin and its academy during the first half of the eighteenth century, and Venice, relative to Rome, during the later eighteenth century. By the 1830s the tour was dominated by a few centers like Paris, Rome, Florence, and Naples, with the tourists making only a few short stays at centers in between. Even the major destination centers suffered; Rome's average stay fell from 84 nights in the 1714–1740 period to 34 nights by the 1831–1840 period.

The Contemporary Tourist Industry

The concept of a "tourist industry" associated with the Grand Tour differs considerably from the industrialized nature of tourist provision established today. According to Leiper (1979:402), the degree of industrialization refers to the dependence of a particular tourist flow on the tourist industry. He maintains that before the 1850s tourism was relatively nonindustrialized, in that flows were not principally influenced by a tourist industry. Although this view seems to be largely correct, and there were few services geared specifically to their needs, there is evidence that an extensive but informally organized range of services could be adapted to meet the requirements of the Grand Tourists.

Accommodation: Accommodation for the early tourists of the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries consisted in using the services which already existed for pilgrims and merchants; the hostels, inns, and post houses which lay along the principal highways (Parks 1954; Stretton 1924; Zaniboni 1921). Even in the sixteenth century, certain inns had well-known reputations and were referred to by name (e.g., "The Three Kings" in Milan and the "Star"

at Padua). By the seventeenth and early eighteenth century some cities and districts of cities were becoming popular for the accommodation they provided; in Paris the Faubourg St. Germain, in Rome the Piazza di Spagna. In the later eighteenth century, Florence possessed some of the best hotels in Europe (e.g., "Vaninis" and "Schneiderffs") as did Frankfurt am Main (e.g., "The Emperor" and "The Red House"). Other hotels with European reputations included Dessein's "L'Hotel d'Angleterre" at Calais and Dejean's "L'Hotel d'Angleterre" at Secheron, outside Geneva. The quality of accommodation in the main centers on the Grand Tour seems to have improved during the eighteenth century although it remained poor in rural areas. Dramatic improvements seem to have come in Germany, which was generally criticized for its accommodation in the eighteenth century, but highly praised by the early nineteenth century (e.g., Frye 1908; Shelley 1844).

Where tourists made a stay of more than a few days in a center, the usual practice throughout the whole tour period was to rent accommodations. Several rooms and servants were hired and meals could be brought in from outside. When Lady Grisell Baillie and her family stayed in Paris in the 1730s, they hired the whole of the first floor of the "Hotel d'Ambour" in the Faubourg St. Germain with six furnished rooms and a hall for the servants (Baillie 1911:407). The Piazza di Spagna in Rome was where most of the Grand Tourists stayed while visiting the city and most of the accommodation here was rented. All the main centers in Europe seem to have provided this service. During the eighteenth century, many palaces in Venice and Genoa were converted into furnished lodgings for wealthy tourists as the fortunes of the local nobility declined (Duppa 1828:186, Miller 1776(2):335, Starke 1820:vii).

Transport: Tourists formed one part of the regular clientele for the extensive transport services that existed throughout Europe (Nugent 1749). Regular passenger services could be found on most of the major European rivers such as the Rhine, Rhone, Danube, Po, and Loire, as well as the canals of France, northern Italy, and the Low Countries. On land there was the widespread post system with relays of horses at regular stages, introduced in France in the fifteenth century (Allen 1972) and extending throughout much of Europe by the late sixteenth century (Rowlands 1576).

The mid-seventeenth century saw the creation of regular coach services in France and Tuscany and this form of transport became widespread by the mid-eighteenth century. Hiring or buying coaches was also common in many centers. Tourists could also make use of the veturino system (so called in Italy, voiturier in

France). A contract was made between the traveler and a horse and carriage hirer who would accompany him for a fixed period or between specified places. This method was slow, as there was no change of horses, but it was more flexible than traveling by the post system.

Later additions to the transport system, which tended to concentrate tourist flows, were the introduction of steam-powered boats on the Rhine from 1816 and steamers on the Swiss lakes from the 1820s. The railways had only a localized effect on flows; by the 1830s they were in Belgium and parts of Germany. From 1846, travelers could go by rail from the channel to the borders of Switzerland but the character of the Grand Tour had changed long before this.

Most of these services were not directed principally at the tourists and it was at a local level that a more direct response to tourism demand could be found. On the Mt. Cenis pass over the Alps, 100 porters plus mules were organized on a rota system at Lanslebourg and Novalese (Martyn 1787:5; Miller 1776(1):41–45), employment that existed until the route was converted into a carriage road in the early nineteenth century. At that time it became fashionable to visit the convent at the top of the Great St. Bernard pass and 30 guides and 70 mules were employed in this trade (Cobbett 1830:372). Guides and transport specifically for tourists were also found near Vesuvius, for excursions around Tivoli, to the waterfall at Terni, in Chamonix and in Geneva and Lausanne (Wilson 1825(1):282).

A significant development came in the mid-eighteenth century with signs of provision for long-distance transport for tourists. Dessein, at the "L'Hotel d'Angleterre" in Calais began to rent or sell carriages to tourists who could then sell them back to him at the end of their tour (Lambert 1950:64). This type of service became more formalized in the early nineteenth century with indications of *organized* long-distance tourist transportation. Dejean, at the "L'Hotel d'Angleterre" at Secheron, arranged for the transport of passengers from London to Paris, Switzerland, and Italy in the early 1800s and from his hotel a carriage could be hired to any part of Europe (Ebel 1820:185). A similar service was provided by Emery in London who operated from the "White Bear" in Piccadilly (Reichard 1829:16). He undertook to transport passengers to Switzerland in 16 days, including 2 days in Paris, and the price would comprise all lodgings, food, and transport. This all-inclusive service for tourists was important for the transition from incidental to more specific tourist industries.

Other services: By the late eighteenth century, bankers were pro-

viding convenient systems of money exchange for tourists. The old bills of exchange and letters of credit were replaced by the more flexible circular exchange notes and transferable exchange notes which could be drawn at many centers abroad. Firms like Ransom, Morland and Hammersley and Herries, Cochrane and Company advertised these services extensively in the guidebooks of the time (e.g., Martyn 1787:xxxix; Reichard 1829:3). Types of services like these were precursors of Thomas Cook and clearly formed an important stage in the increasing industrialization of the tourist trade.

Bankers abroad often provided assistance to the tourist by recommending hotels, engaging servants, forwarding baggage, and suggesting places to visit. They formed one element in an informal system of guidance to the tourist, the most notable of which was the diplomatic service. This expanded from the late seventeenth and eighteenth centuries (Horn 1961) to cover many of the main centers in Europe such as Paris, Turin, Venice, Genoa, Florence, Naples, Vienna, Dresden, and Berlin, with staff ranging from ambassadors to envoys. Commercial centers, like Leghorn, were staffed by consuls. The British embassy would often be the first place a tourist would visit on his arrival in a center. Some representatives like Horace Mann in Florence (from 1738 to 1786) and William Hamilton in Naples (from 1764 to 1800) organized assemblies and balls for the tourists where they could meet one another and mix with notable local inhabitants.

Guides to the chief monuments in the cities visited had existed for the earlier pilgrims and tourists provided a new generation of customers. Most towns seemed to have them and they would beseige new arrivals in Rome when they made their way to the Piazza di Spagna. Regular employment at some centers lasted throughout the centuries; tours of the Grotte del Cane near Naples featured in tourist accounts from the sixteenth to the nineteenth century. New tourist centers increased trade. Chamonix, by the 1820s, had 40 guides and 70 mules which catered for 2,250 visitors in 1822 (Wilson 1825(1):367–368).

The impact of the tourists: The visit of the British tourists had many repercussions. Prices rose when they arrived in an area. Montpellier was very expensive in the 1760s (Smollett 1979:86) and Naples likewise in the late eighteenth century (Lemaistre 1806(2):81). These prices could vary with the seasonal influx of the tourists. In Rome, prices fell by a half when Easter was over (Matthews 1820:233) and in Pisa lodgings cost more in the popular winter season (Cobbett 1830:97). A decline in popularity of an area would result in falling prices. By the nineteenth century, Tours and

Blois were considered very cheap (Pennington 1825(1):48). Dijon, lying on the main tourist route, was expensive (Todd 1968:557), but Verona was cheaper than popular Florence (Hazlitt 1922:277). Murray, in the 1830s, noted how Swiss innkeepers had become among the wealthiest and most influential inhabitants in some cantons (1838:xix). From the early nineteenth century, many shops in the main tourist centers were stocking favorite English goods; Lowe's, with premises in Florence and Rome, sold English medicine and paper (Matthews 1820:164).

Souvenirs were not confined to the works of art purchased by the aristocracy. Prints of views and other mementoes were common and in Rome a whole class of artists worked exclusively for the tourist trade. Called "scarpellini," they depended on seasonal work related to visitor patterns (Forsyth 1813:239; Morgan 1821(1):439).

Some behavioral changes in the host community were attributed to the tourist influx. Mary Shelley in 1840 found German waiters anxious to practice their English (1844:30), while other tourists claimed that the Swiss, even in the remoter cantons, were becoming more rapacious as wealthy tourists became more common (Latrobe 1832:302; Matthews 1820:345; Raffles 1818:54).

For most of the Grand Tour period, services exclusive to the tourists did not exist and they used facilities common to all travelers. Yet, although their numbers were small, the Grand Tourists were wealthy and they concentrated along a comparatively small number of routes, thereby increasing their impact. By the 1820s, this impact was beginning to produce clear signs of a more organized tourist industry.

CONCLUSION

The Grand Tour is a phase in the history of tourism for which there is an abundance of source material. Although there are problems associated with their selection and interpretation, an analytical approach to the material is possible and this can help to clarify several features of the tour which were discussed at the beginning of the article.

Distinct spatial and temporal patterns in touring were clearly established by the early seventeenth century which indicates both an early date for the establishment of the tour and a tendency to adhere to prescribed routes. These patterns were breaking down by the 1820s and 1830s and the tour evolved from a lengthy journey to a summer excursion abroad lasting a few months. During the later eighteenth century there was a fundamental shift in the social class

of the tourists from the landed classes to the middle classes and this change had repercussions on many aspects of the tour including the age of the tourist, his education and occupation, motives for travel, the composition of the traveling groups and the length of time of the tour. These changes occurred before the railways or figures like Thomas Cook had any significant impact.

Many of the features of the Grand Tour can add depth to an understanding of aspects of modern tourism. The spatial and temporal patterns and regularities of the tour are echoed in more recent international tourist flows (Williams and Zelinsky 1970). The process of the change in the social class of the tourists reflects the cycle of successive class intrusion, with its associated social segregation and search for peripheral areas, which has characterized the evolution of many patterns of tourism (Christaller 1964; Cosgrove and Jackson 1972:34; Pearce 1982:9).

The Grand Tour was an important era in the history of tourism. The presence of wealthy British travelers stimulated tourist development in the south of France, Switzerland, and parts of Italy. The transition to a socially broader tourist group, with an associated increase in numbers, accelerated the growth of an organized tourist industry in parts of Europe by the 1820s and 1830s. It was upon this foundation that the empire of Thomas Cook was built.

Certain aspects of tourism which are related to the Grand Tour remain unclear. There is a need to investigate the range of archive material in the host countries to gain a more complete picture of the tourist system and to assess the impact of the Grand Tour in various regions. The development of tourism *within* Britain and its relationship to travel abroad remains enigmatic (Dent 1974, 1975; Moir 1964). Similarly, the precise evolution of travel for the social elite in the nineteenth century, after they forsook the traditional Grand Tour circuit, has yet to be fully explored. When these problems receive further research it will then be possible to gain a better perspective of the legacy of the Grand Tour and to assess its contribution to the evolution of tourism more clearly. □□

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